

INFO 510 Bayesian Modelling and Inference

Lecture 13 – Metropolis-Hastings (MCMC algorithm)

Dr. Kunal Arekar
College of Information
University of Arizona, Tucson

November 3, 2025

Previous two lectures...

Markov Chain

Markov chain is a process that consists of a finite number of states and some known probabilities p_{ij} , where p_{ij} is the probability of moving from state i to state j .

Transition probability (transition matrix)

Markov Property and Memorylessness

The key feature of Markov Chains is that the future state depends only on the current state, not on the sequence of events that preceded it. This property is called the Markov Property.

$$P(X_{t+1} = s \mid X_t = s_t, \cancel{X_{t-1} = s_{t-1}}, \dots, \cancel{X_0 = s_0}) = P(X_{t+1} = s \mid X_t = s_t)$$

distribution
of X_{t+1}

depends
on X_t

whatever happened before
time t doesn't matter.



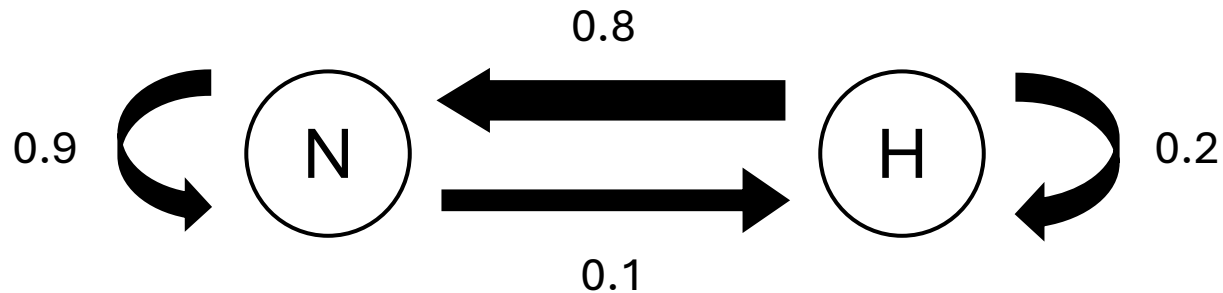
Some chocolate

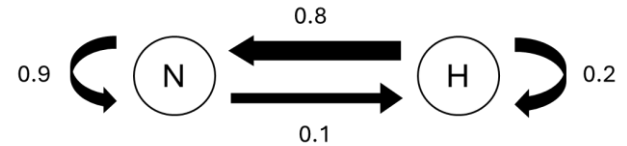
Nestle = 0.6



Sum chocolate

Hershey = 0.4





Nestle = 0.6

Hershey = 0.4

		t + 1	
		N	H
t	N	0.9	0.1
	H	0.8	0.2

Transition matrix

At time t + 1, what market share will Nestle and Hershey have?

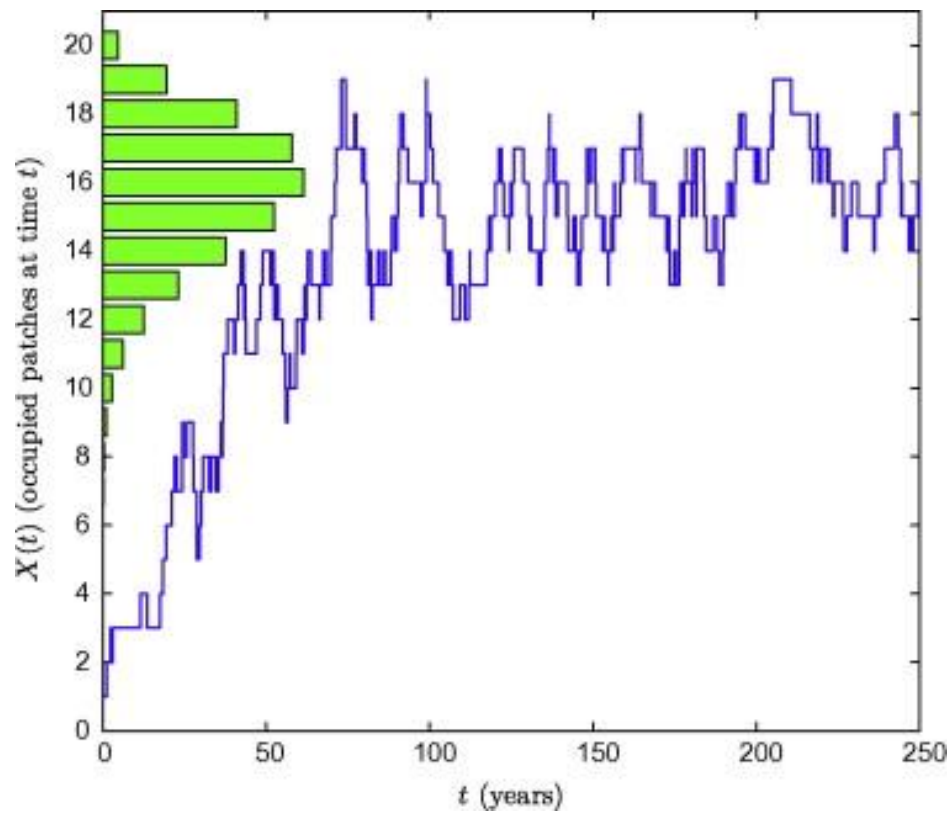
$$\begin{aligned}
 N(t+1) &= (0.6 * 0.9) + (0.4 * 0.8) \\
 &= 0.54 + 0.32 = 0.86
 \end{aligned}$$

$$\begin{aligned}
 H(t+1) &= (0.4 * 0.2) + (0.6 * 0.1) \\
 &= 0.08 + 0.06 = 0.14
 \end{aligned}$$

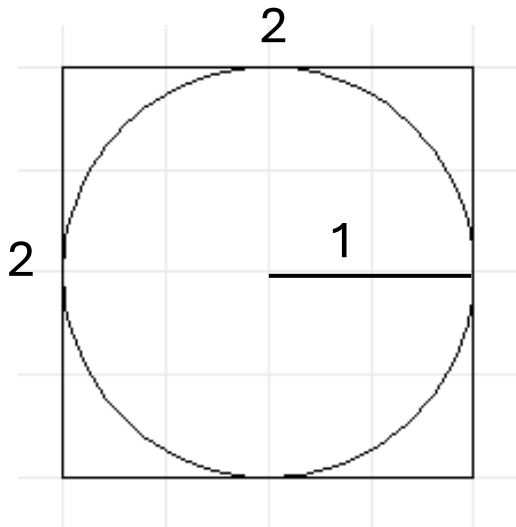
	N	H
t	0.6	0.4
t + 1	0.86	0.14
t + 2	0.886	0.114

Stationary Distribution - Where the System Settles

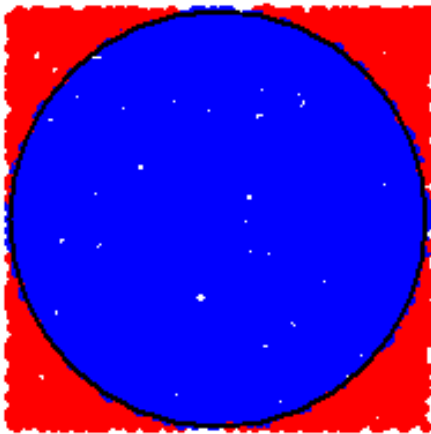
After many steps, a Markov chain may reach a state where the probabilities stop changing



Monte Carlo methods



Prob of a random point inside the circle = $\pi/4 = \mathbf{0.7853982}$



$N(10) = 0.9$

$N(100) = 0.81$

$N(10000) = 0.7903$

```
N <- 1000000
```

```
circ <- 0
```

```
for (i in 1:N) {
```

```
  x <- runif(1, -1, 1)
```

```
  y <- runif(1, -1, 1)
```

```
  if (x^2 + y^2 <= 1) {
```

```
    circ <- circ + 1
```

```
  }
```

```
}
```

```
test <- circ/N = 0.785313
```

~ 3 secs

Problems where an exact solution is difficult or impossible to compute directly

These problems include high-dimensional integrals, complex probabilistic models, or large-scale simulations

For e.g.

Simulating stock prices - how a portfolio of stocks will behave under different market conditions, randomly varying interest rates, stock prices, and other factors (finance)

simulate complex systems - how particles move and interact (physics)

Use Monte Carlo methods which solves problems through random sampling

useful when dealing with complex systems where a deterministic solution (i.e., one where every step is fully calculated) is either impossible or computationally expensive

Two key algorithms

Importance sampling

Sometimes, sampling directly from a target distribution (e.g., a posterior distribution) is difficult

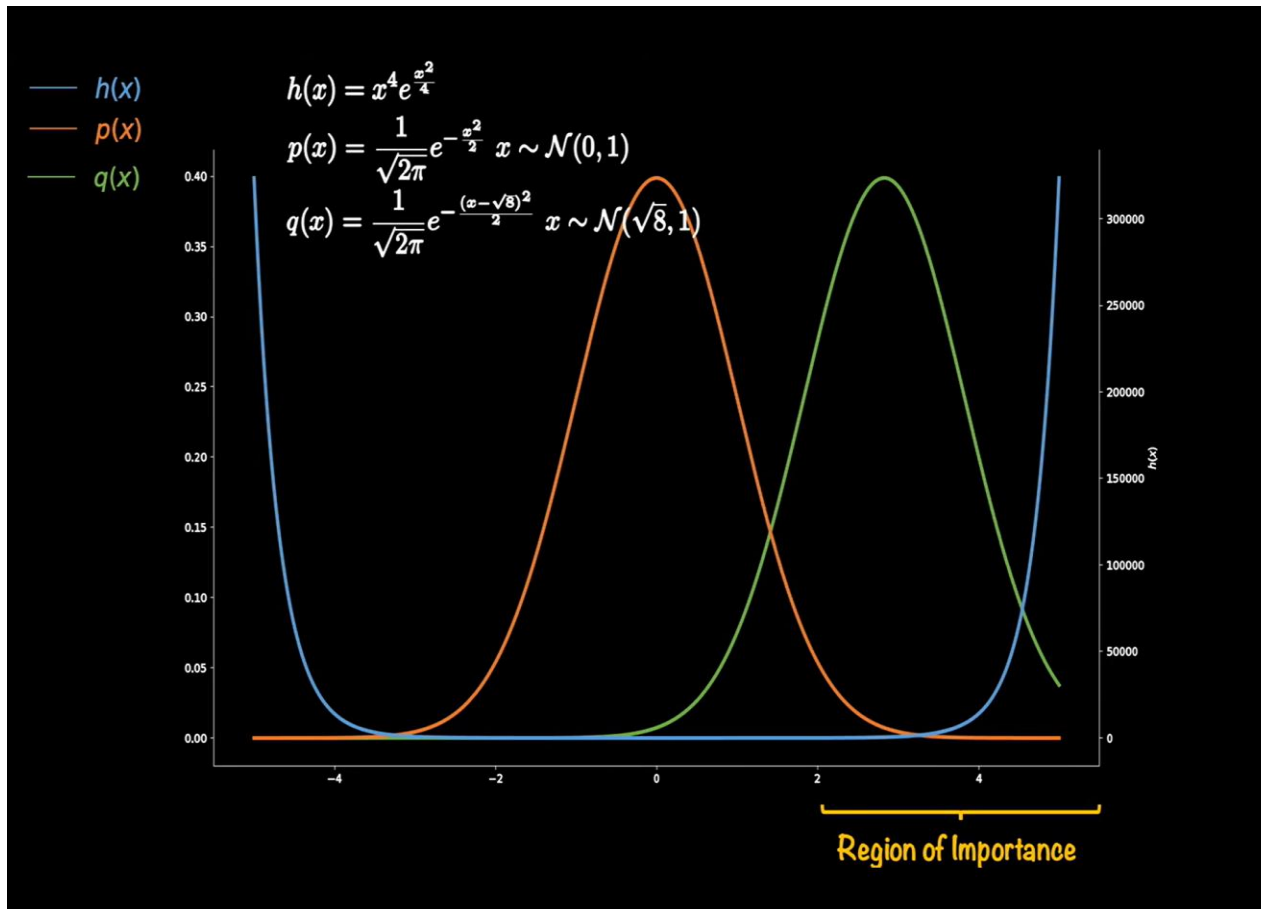
Importance sampling allows us to sample from an easier distribution and re-weight the samples to approximate the target distribution

Rejection sampling

Propose samples from an easier distribution

Accept or reject each sample based on how well it fits the target distribution

Importance Sampling



Where Does the Easier Distribution $q(x)$ Come From?

Where Does the Easier Distribution $q(x)$ Come From?

It doesn't just appear magically, it's chosen strategically

The choice depends on the specific problem at hand

Some common guidelines to choose $q(x)$:

Match the Shape of $f(x)$ in “Important” regions

Simpler Functional Forms – $q(x)$ should have a simpler mathematical form that allows easy sampling

Tail Behavior – if $f(x)$ has long tail, you would want $q(x)$ to have long tail

pick one that minimizes the variance of the estimate

Rejection sampling

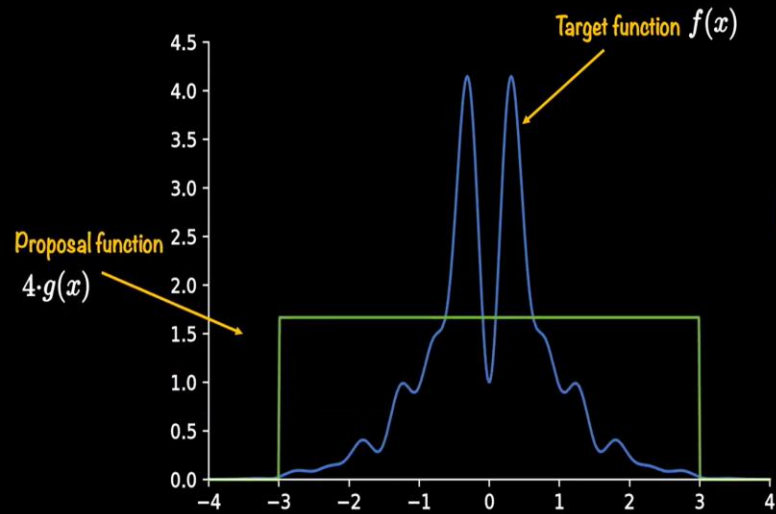
Propose samples from an easier distribution

Accept or reject each sample based on how well it fits the target distribution

Rejection sampling or Accept – Reject sampling

- Select a proposal distribution
- Scale it
- Use the acceptance criteria that involves randomness to make a decision

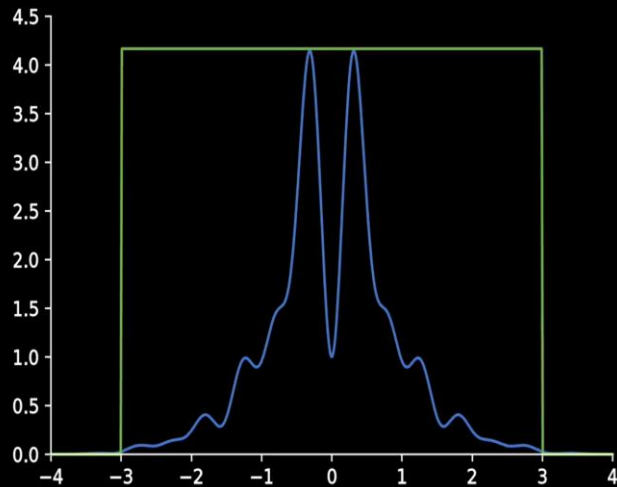
$$f(x) = e^{-x^2/2} \cdot (\sin^2(6+x) + 3 \cdot \cos^2(x) \cdot \sin^2(4x) + 1)$$



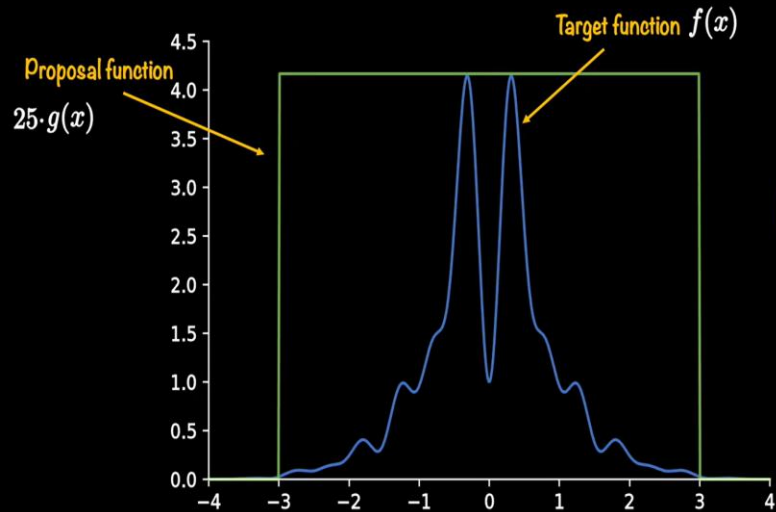
$$x \sim \mathcal{U}(-3, 3)$$

$$g(x) = \frac{1}{b-a}$$

— $f(x)$
— $g(x)$

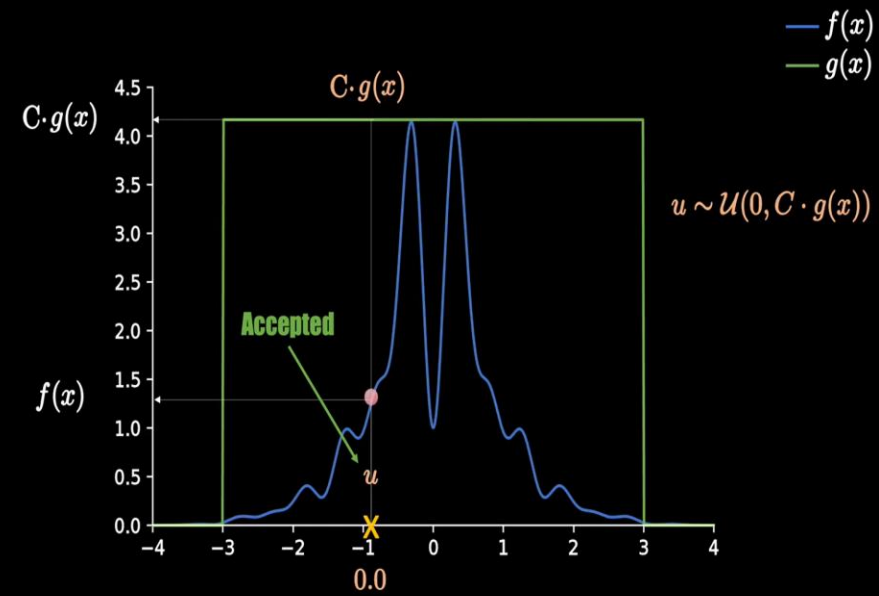
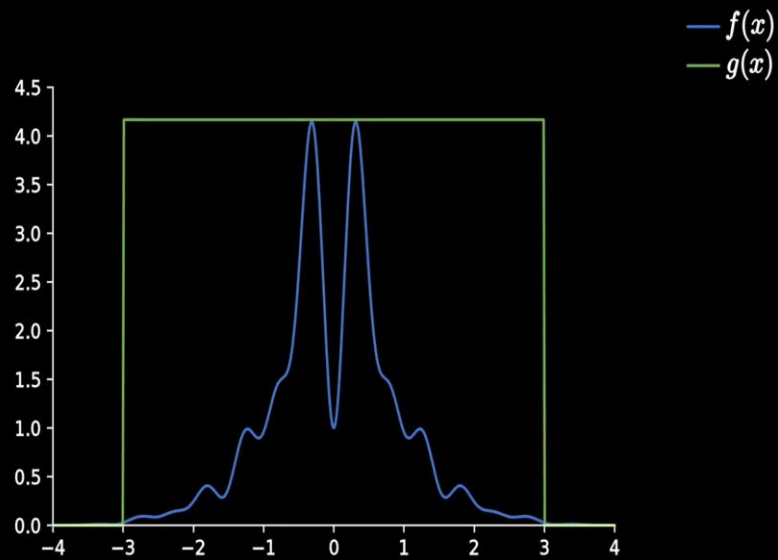
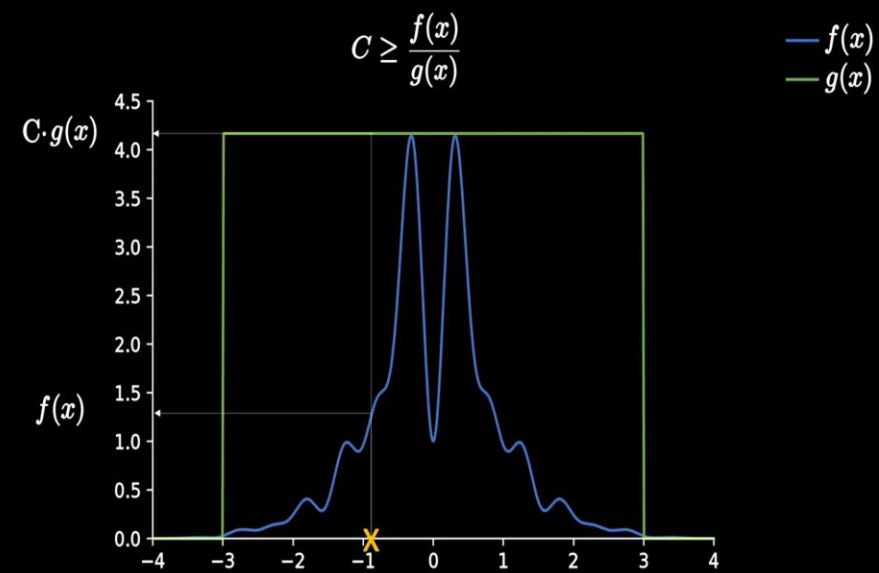


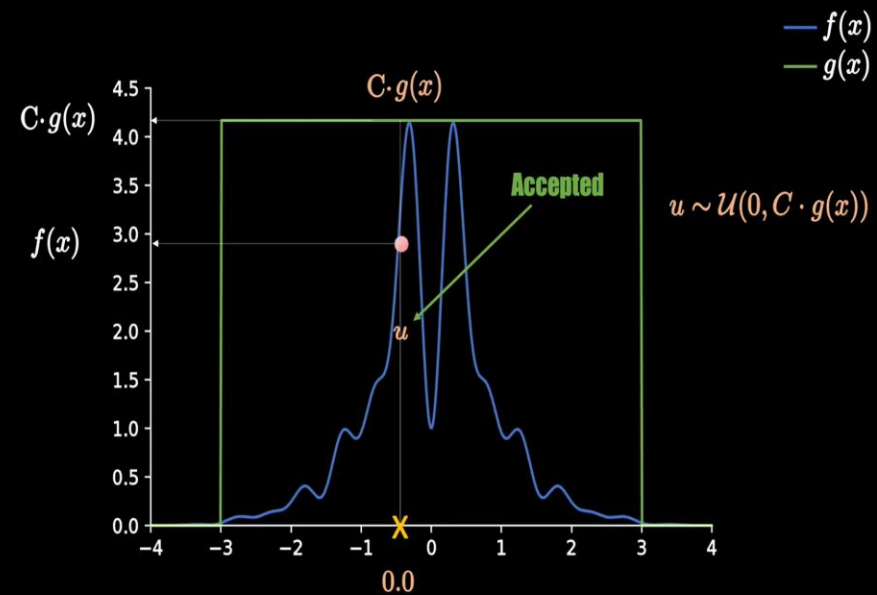
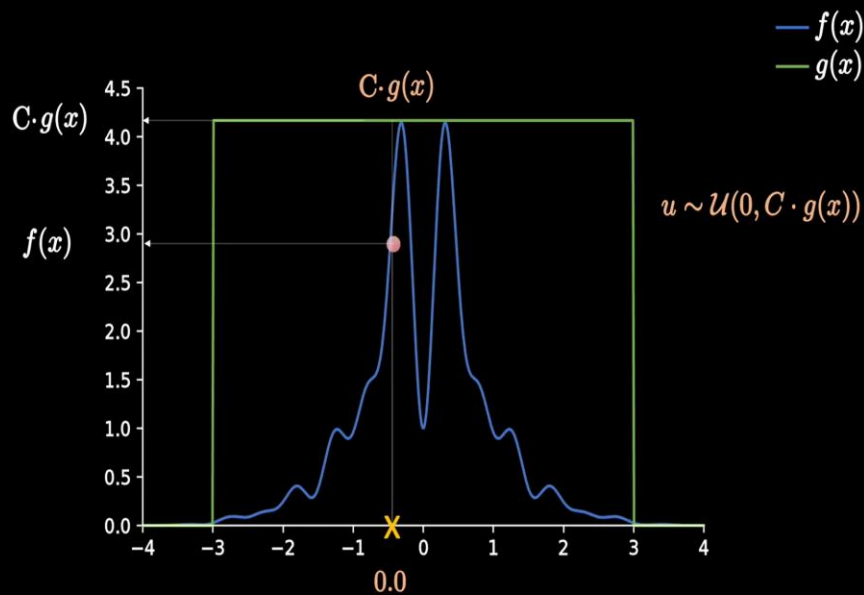
$$f(x) = e^{-x^2/2} \cdot (\sin^2(6+x) + 3 \cdot \cos^2(x) \cdot \sin^2(4x) + 1)$$



$$x \sim \mathcal{U}(-3, 3)$$

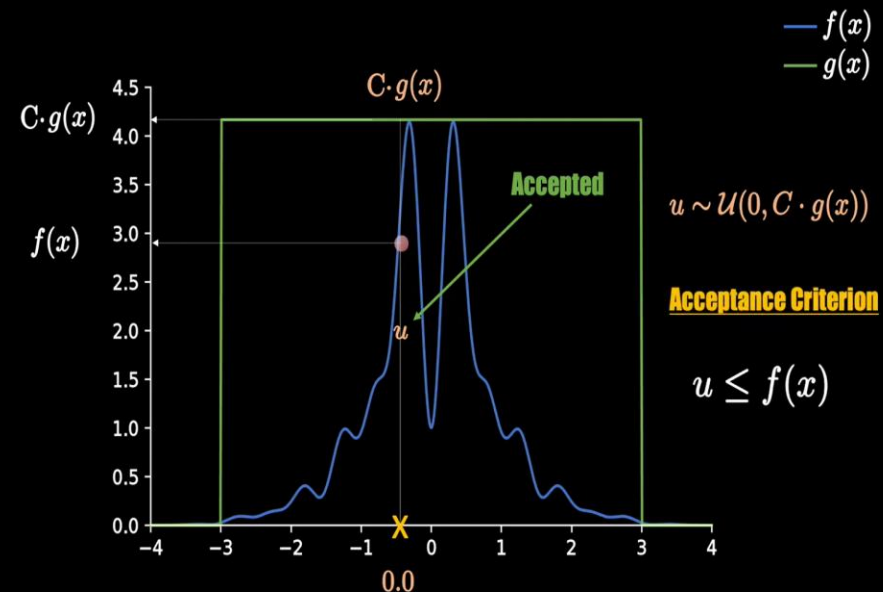
$$g(x) = \frac{1}{b-a}$$

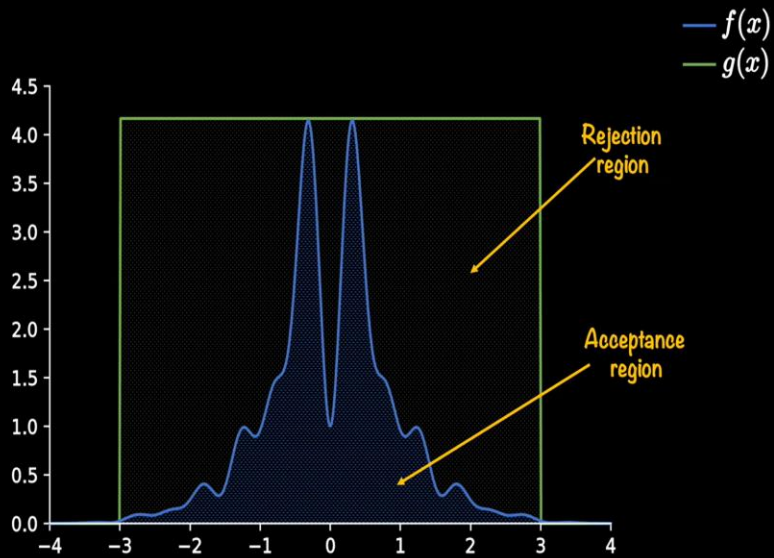




Rejection sampling –

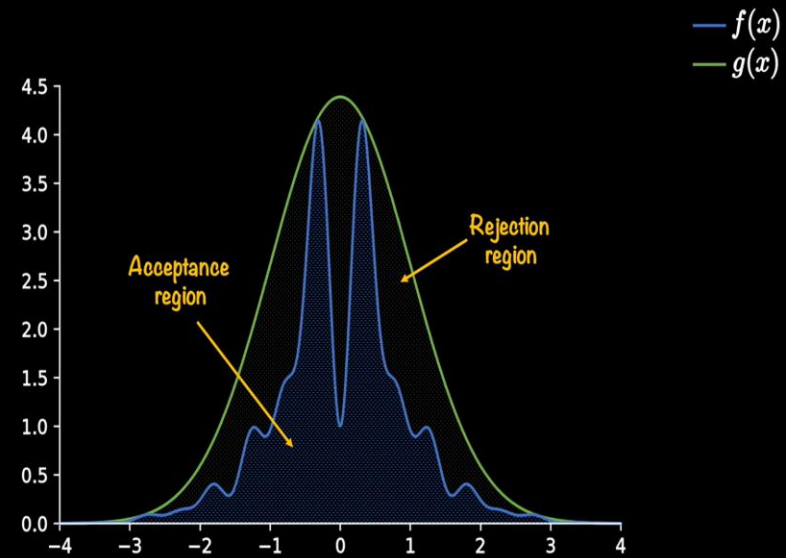
- Select a proposal distribution
- Scale it
- Use the acceptance criteria that involves randomness to make a decision





Run it many times ~1 mill

Acceptance rate = 23.5%



Acceptance rate = 53.63%

Markov Chain Monte Carlo (MCMC)

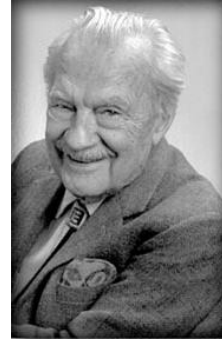
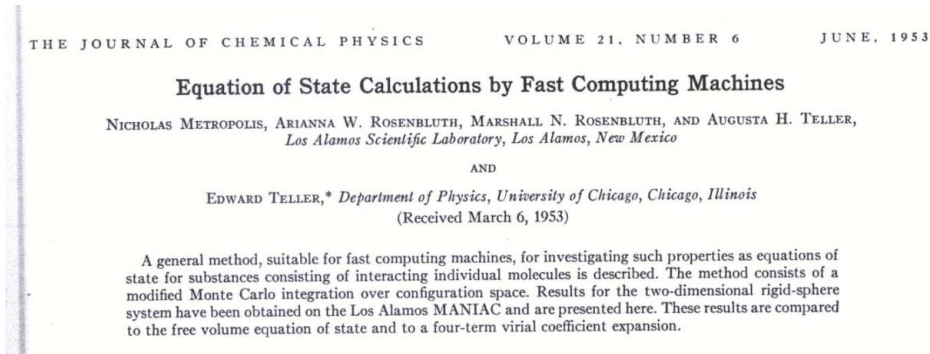
Is a set of algorithms to sample from a probability distribution such that the samples match the distribution statistics.

- Markov - screening assumption, the next sample is only dependent on the previous sample
- Chain - the samples form a sequence often demonstrating a transition from burn-in chain with inaccurate statistics and equilibrium chain with accurate statistics
- Monte Carlo - use of Monte Carlo simulation, random sampling from a statistical distribution

Why is this useful?

- we often don't have the target distribution, it is unknown
- but we can sample with the correct frequencies with other form of information such as conditional probability density functions

Metropolis-Hastings Algorithm



Probably the most popular MCMC algorithm

Developed as an extension of the basic Metropolis algorithm (1953)

Arianna Wright wrote the first full implementation of the MCMC method.

Hastings in 1970, extended the solution to non-symmetric proposal

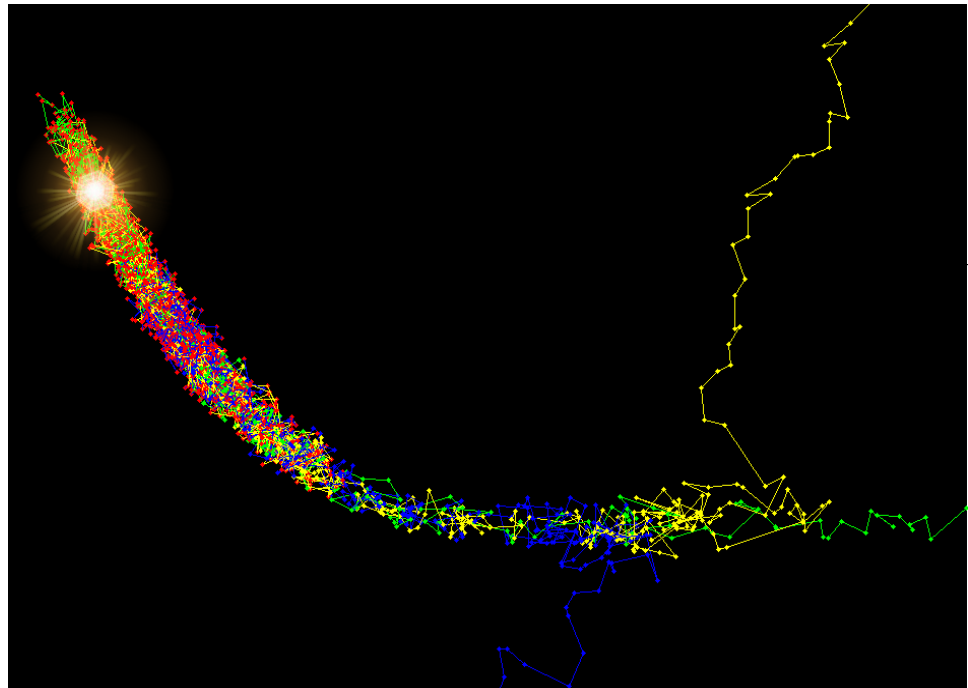
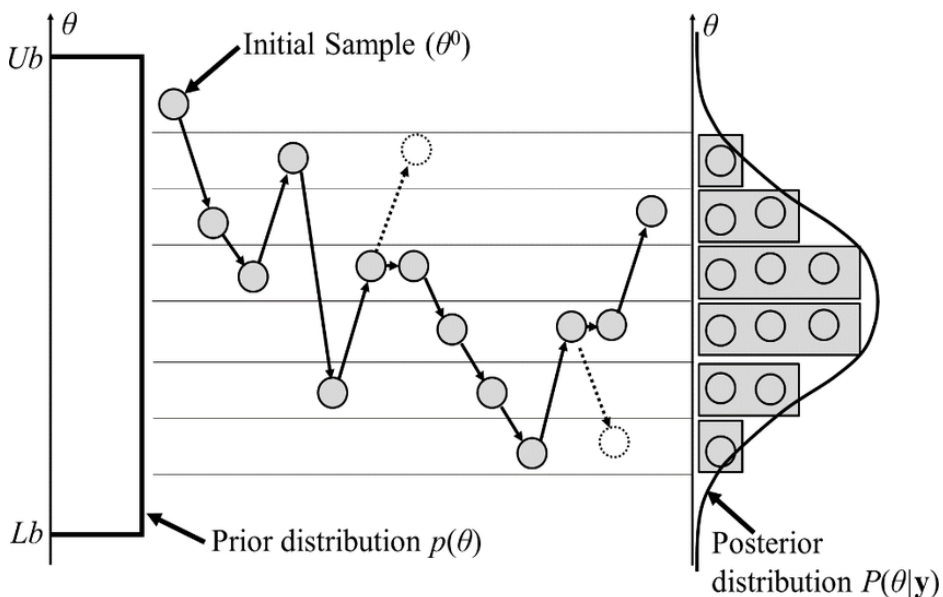
Samples from a target distribution, $\pi(x)$



Combines a proposal distribution with an acceptance-rejection mechanism to create a chain of samples that converge to the target distribution



Metropolis-Hastings Algorithm



Metropolis–Hastings and other MCMC algorithms are generally used for sampling from multi-dimensional distributions, especially when the number of dimensions is high.

Metropolis-Hastings Algorithm

Steps of the Algorithm

Initialize - start with an arbitrary initial point x_t

Propose - from the current state x_t , propose a new state x' using a proposal distribution $q(x'|x_t)$

Compute the acceptance probability

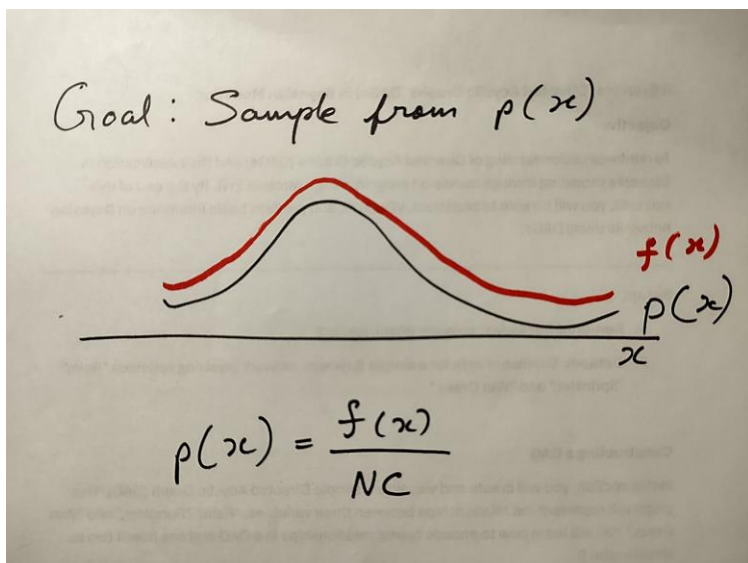
$$\alpha = \min \left(1, \frac{\pi(x')q(x_t|x')}{\pi(x_t)q(x'|x_t)} \right)$$

Accept or Reject -

With probability α , accept the new state x' (set $x_{t+1}=x'$)

Otherwise, stay at the current state $x_{t+1} = x_t$

Iterate this process to generate a chain of samples

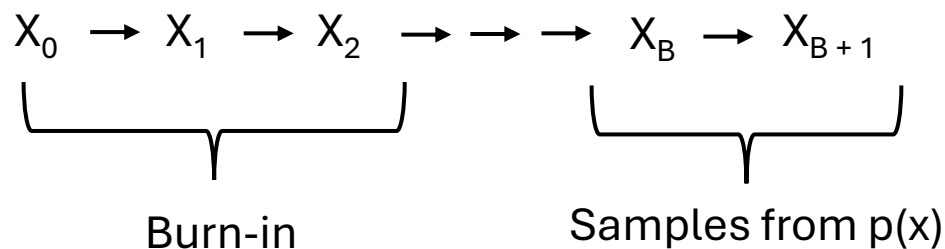


We don't always know the exact form of $p(x)$

We only know this numerator term $f(x)$

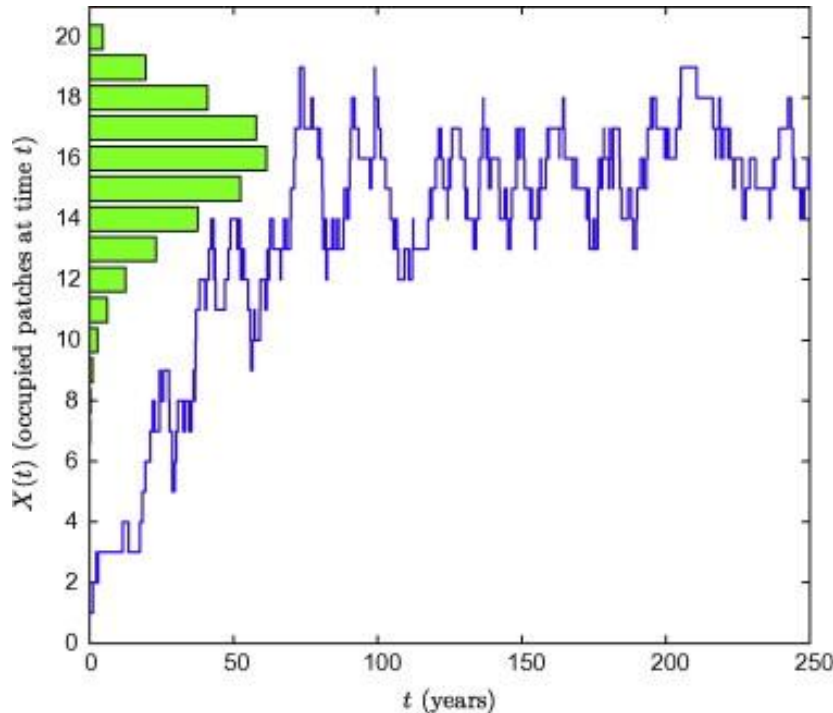
Can we use only $f(x)$ to get samples from $p(x)$?

Idea behind MCMC

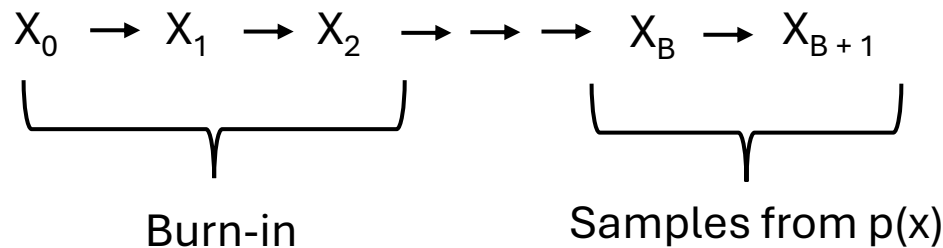


How to estimate the transition probabilities from one state to another?

Stationary Distribution - Where the System Settles



After many steps, a Markov chain may reach a state where the probabilities stop changing



How to estimate the transition probabilities from one state to another?

Metropolis-Hastings Algorithm

Suppose that the current state of the Markov chain is x_n and we want to generate x_{n+1}

first stage is to generate a candidate x^*

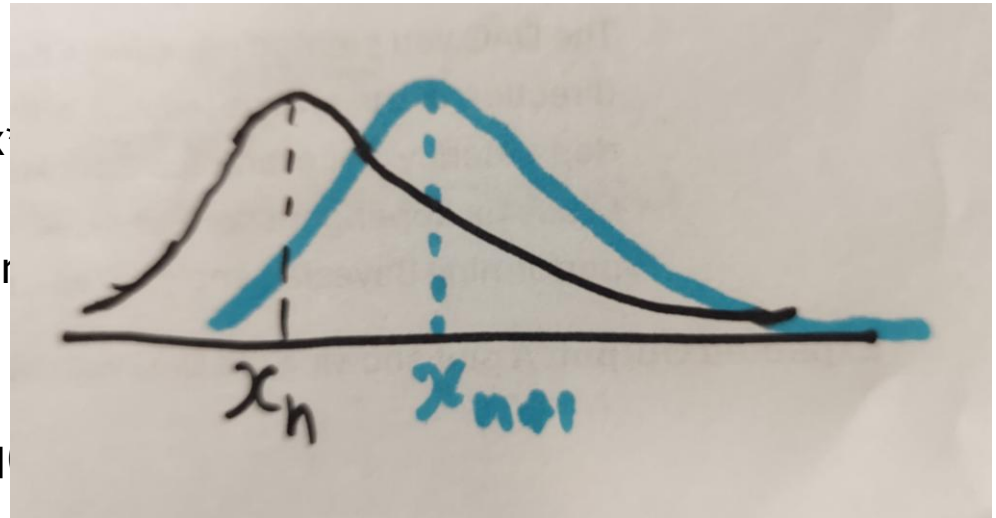
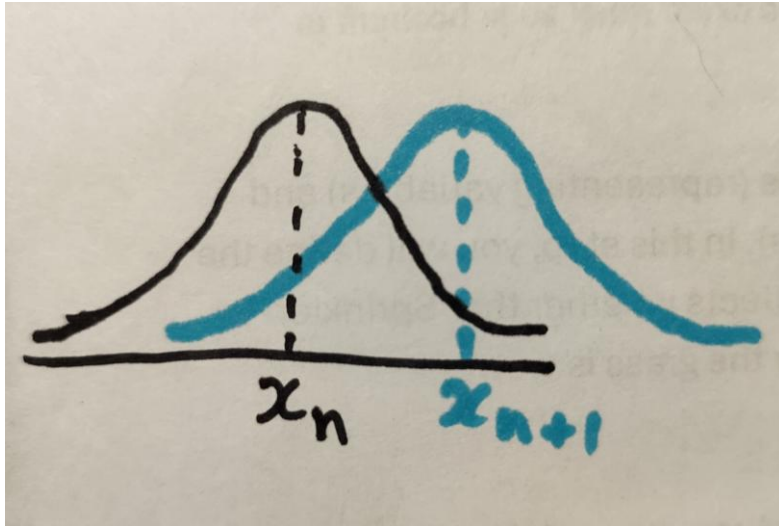
x^* is generated from the proposal distribution that we already know how to sample from

Denote this proposal distribution as $q(x^*|x_n)$.

The proposal distribution could typically be a normal distribution centered on the current state x_n

Metropolis-Hastings Algorithm

Suppose that the current state of the Markov chain is x_n and we want to

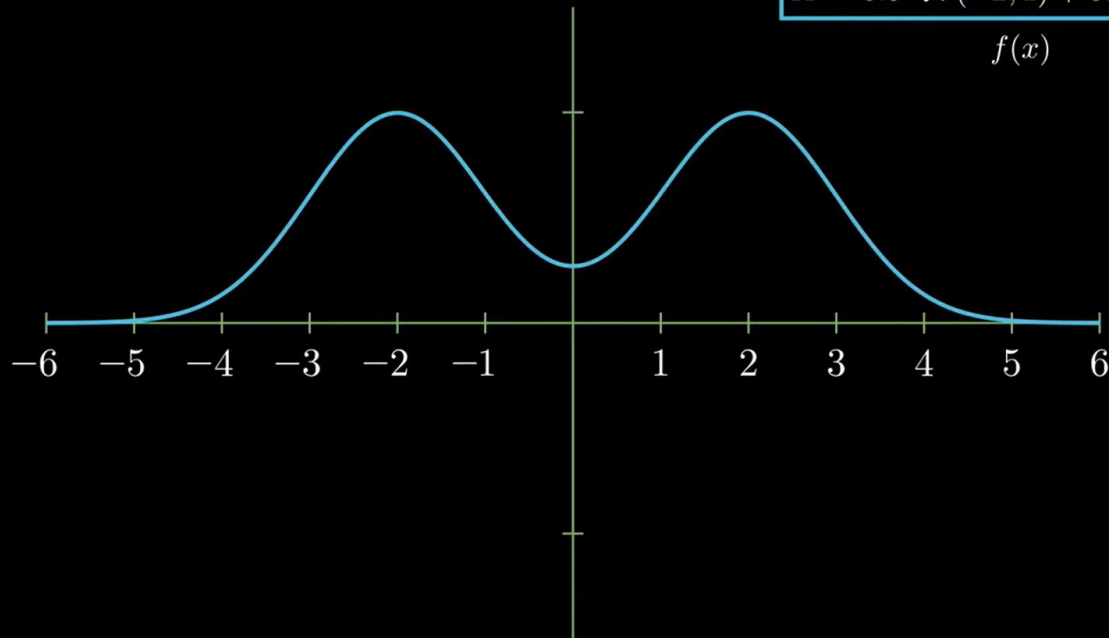


The proposal distribution could typically be a normal distribution centered on the current state x_n

Target Distribution

$$X \sim 0.5 \cdot \mathcal{N}(-2, 1) + 0.5 \cdot \mathcal{N}(2, 1)$$

$f(x)$

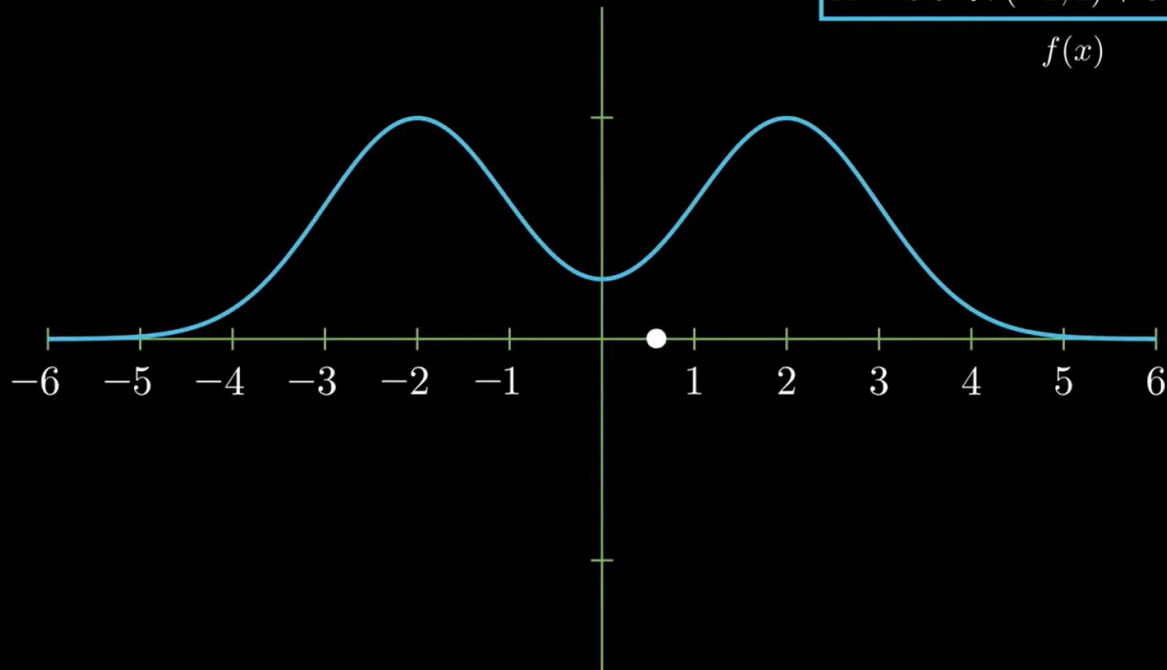


$$x_t = 0.6$$

Target Distribution

$$X \sim 0.5 \cdot \mathcal{N}(-2, 1) + 0.5 \cdot \mathcal{N}(2, 1)$$

$$f(x)$$



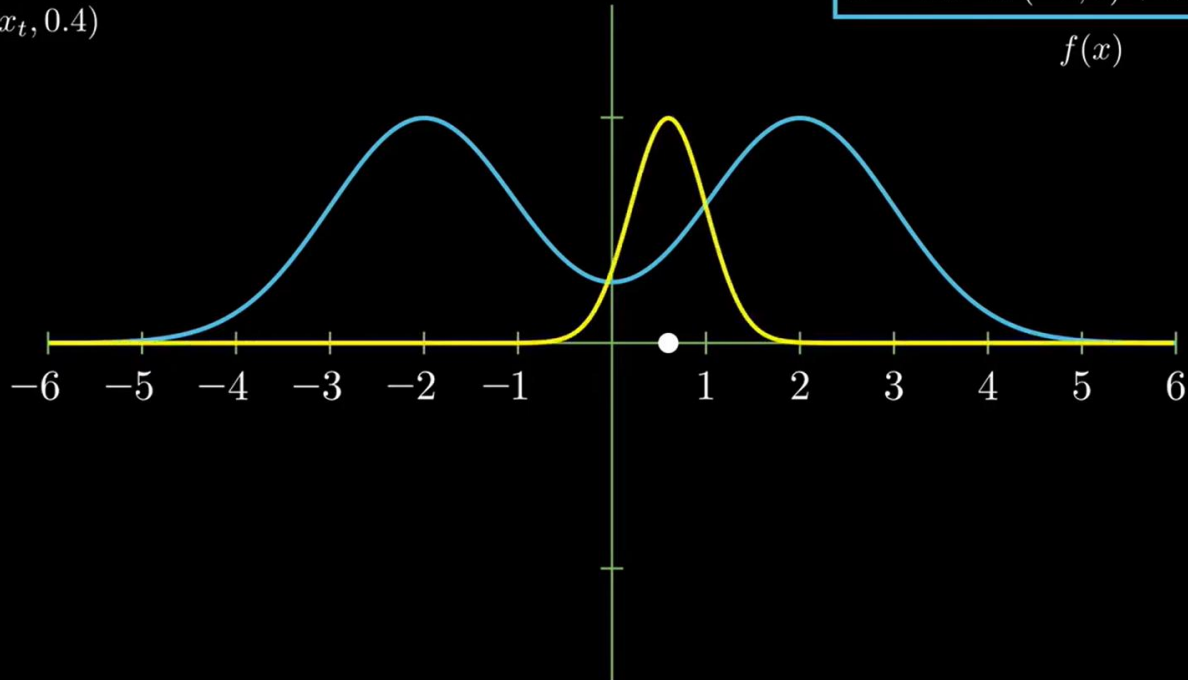
$$x_t = 0.6$$

$$x_{t+1} \sim \mathcal{N}(x_t, 0.4)$$

Target Distribution

$$X \sim 0.5 \cdot \mathcal{N}(-2, 1) + 0.5 \cdot \mathcal{N}(2, 1)$$

$f(x)$

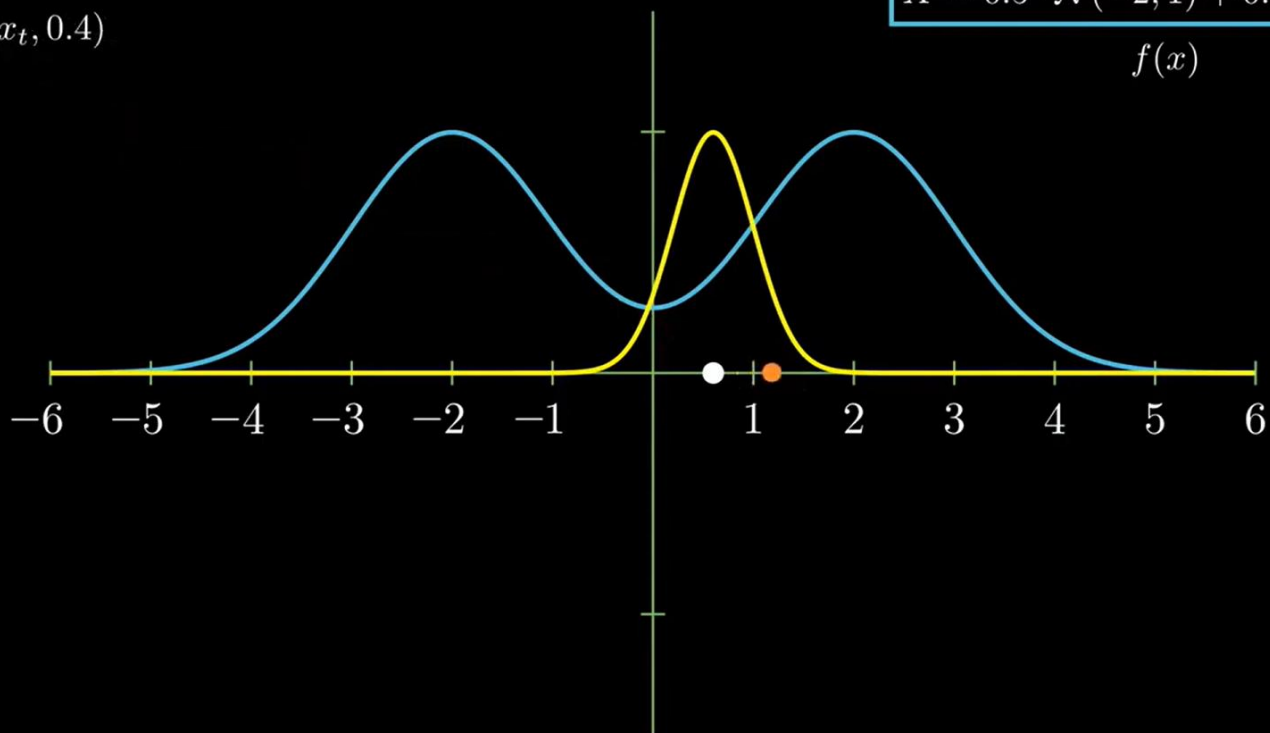


Target Distribution

$$X \sim 0.5 \cdot \mathcal{N}(-2, 1) + 0.5 \cdot \mathcal{N}(2, 1)$$

$f(x)$

$$x_t = 0.6$$
$$x_{t+1} \sim \mathcal{N}(x_t, 0.4)$$



The accept-reject step

calculate the acceptance probability, $A(x_n \rightarrow x^*)$,

$$A(x_n \rightarrow x_*) = \min \left(1, \frac{p(x^*)}{p(x^n)} \times \frac{q(x_n|x^*)}{q(x^*|x_n)} \right)$$

ratio $p(x^*)/p(x_n)$ doesn't depend on the normalising constant for the distribution, basically a simple thing to calculate without any numerical integration

$q(x_n|x^*)/q(x^*|x_n)$ corrects for any biases that the proposal distribution might induce

Detailed balance

$$\forall a, b.$$

$$p(a) T(a \rightarrow b) = p(b) T(b \rightarrow a)$$

$$\frac{f(a)}{NC} g(b|a) A(a \rightarrow b) = \frac{f(b)}{NC} g(a|b) A(b \rightarrow a)$$

$$\frac{A(a \rightarrow b)}{A(b \rightarrow a)} = \frac{f(b)}{f(a)} \times \frac{g(a|b)}{g(b|a)}$$

r_g

r_f

$$\gamma_f \gamma_g < 1 \rightarrow \begin{aligned} A(a \rightarrow b) &= \gamma_f \gamma_g \\ A(b \rightarrow a) &= 1 \end{aligned}$$

$$\gamma_f \gamma_g \geq 1 \rightarrow \begin{aligned} A(a \rightarrow b) &= 1 \\ A(b \rightarrow a) &= \frac{1}{\gamma_f \gamma_g} \end{aligned}$$

$$A(a \rightarrow b) = \min(1, \gamma_f \gamma_g)$$

Now let the distributions be symmetrical

Let g be symmetric

$$A(a \rightarrow b) = \text{Min}(1, r_g) = \text{Min}\left(1, \frac{f(b)}{f(a)}\right)$$

$$p(b) > p(a) \Rightarrow A(a \rightarrow b) = 1$$

$$p(b) < p(a) \Rightarrow A(a \rightarrow b) = \frac{p(b)}{p(a)}$$

$$p(b) > p(a) \Rightarrow A(a \rightarrow b) = 1$$
$$p(b) < p(a) \Rightarrow A(a \rightarrow b) = \frac{p(b)}{p(a)}$$

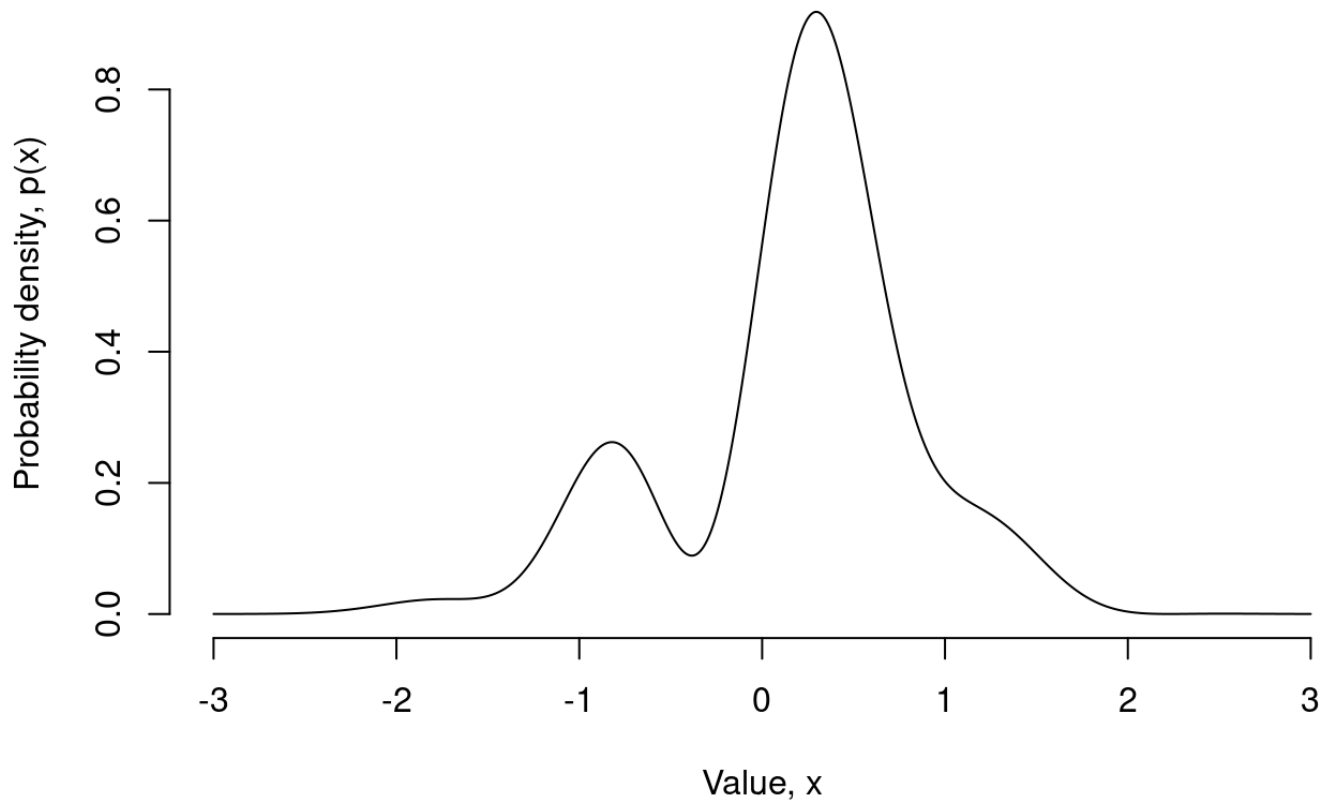
If acceptance ratio is < 1 , we cannot immediately reject b ,

Even though $f(b)$ is small, it still exist a chance to be drawn

Instead, we will generate a random variable u from $\text{Unif}(0,1)$
if $\alpha \geq u$, we accept b , otherwise, we reject b

Implementing the sampler

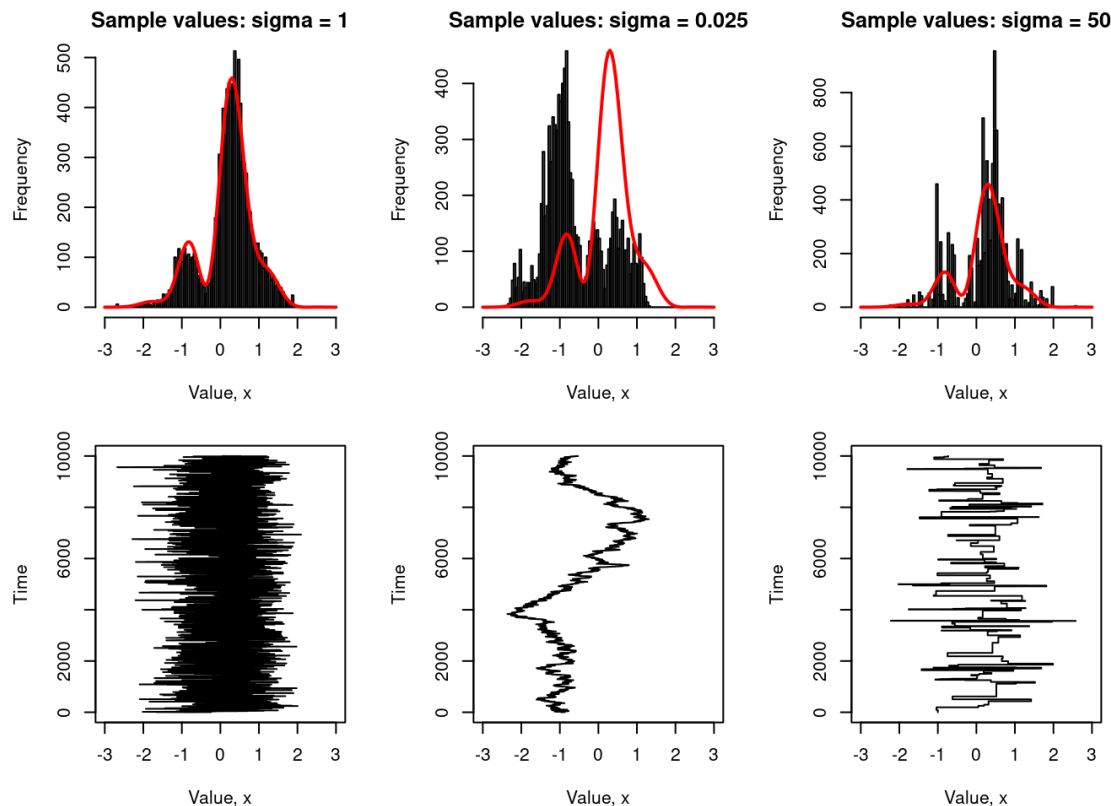
Let's head over to R studio



The effect of proposal width

If it's too narrow, your sampler will have an extremely high acceptance rate on average, but it will move around extremely slowly - very low mixing rate

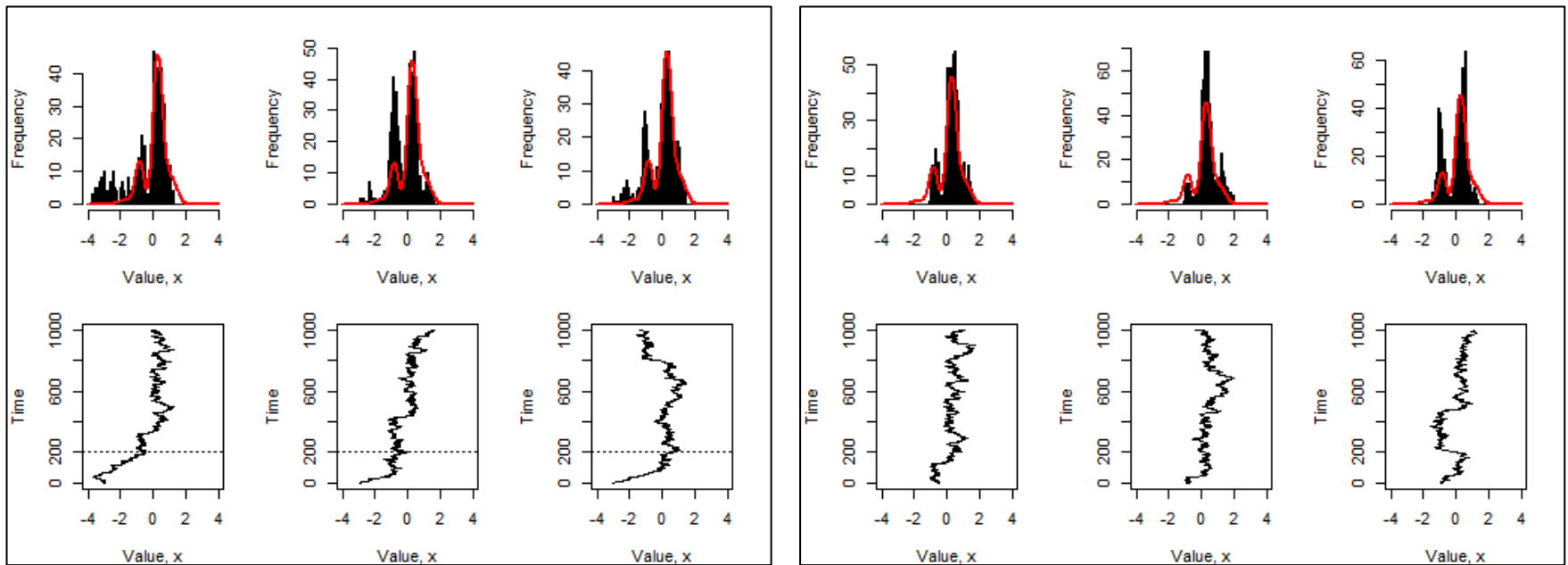
If it's too wide, the acceptance rate becomes too low and the chain gets stuck on specific values for long periods of time



“play around” with the choice of proposal distribution

The role of the burn-in period

Let's work with a proposal distribution that is too narrow, say $\sigma = 0.1$



histograms are biased towards the left (i.e., towards the bad start location)

Setting the burnin to 200

The role of the lag parameter

allow several iterations of the sampler to elapse in between successive samples; sigma = 50

